

COMP2111 Week 10
Term 1, 2023
Lambda Calculus and Higher-Order Logic

Week 10

Today λ -calculus.

Friday Wrapup and exam prep.

Admin announcements

myExperience

- The myExperience survey is up. Link on the website. Please take a moment to fill it in, it helps a lot! :)

Admin announcements

myExperience

- The myExperience survey is up. Link on the website. Please take a moment to fill it in, it helps a lot! :)

Final exam

- The exam is a 24-hour take-home exam.

Admin announcements

myExperience

- The myExperience survey is up. Link on the website. Please take a moment to fill it in, it helps a lot! :)

Final exam

- The exam is a 24-hour take-home exam.
- Wednesday May 3rd 8AM–Friday May 4th 8AM.

Admin announcements

myExperience

- The myExperience survey is up. Link on the website. Please take a moment to fill it in, it helps a lot! :)

Final exam

- The exam is a 24-hour take-home exam.
- Wednesday May 3rd 8AM–Friday May 4th 8AM.
- When the time starts, you will receive the exam questions in your UNSW inbox.

Admin announcements

myExperience

- The myExperience survey is up. Link on the website. Please take a moment to fill it in, it helps a lot! :)

Final exam

- The exam is a 24-hour take-home exam.
- Wednesday May 3rd 8AM–Friday May 4th 8AM.
- When the time starts, you will receive the exam questions in your UNSW inbox.
- Submission via pdf through give.

Admin announcements

myExperience

- The myExperience survey is up. Link on the website. Please take a moment to fill it in, it helps a lot! :)

Final exam

- The exam is a 24-hour take-home exam.
- Wednesday May 3rd 8AM–Friday May 4th 8AM.
- When the time starts, you will receive the exam questions in your UNSW inbox.
- Submission via pdf through give.
- You can ask questions on Ed during the exam. I sleep at night, so try to ask early.

Admin announcements

myExperience

- The myExperience survey is up. Link on the website. Please take a moment to fill it in, it helps a lot! :)

Final exam

- The exam is a 24-hour take-home exam.
- Wednesday May 3rd 8AM–Friday May 4th 8AM.
- When the time starts, you will receive the exam questions in your UNSW inbox.
- Submission via pdf through give.
- You can ask questions on Ed during the exam. I sleep at night, so try to ask early.
- The intended workload is < 4 hours; the 24 hours are just to give you flexibility. We can't stop you from using more than 4 hours...

Detour: program evaluation

```
int f (int n) {  
    if n = 0 then 1 else 0  
}
```

Let's evaluate this function step by step:

$f(0)$ $\longrightarrow$

Detour: program evaluation

```
int f (int n) {  
    if n = 0 then 1 else 0  
}
```

Let's evaluate this function step by step:

$f(0)$	$\longrightarrow$ (function application)
if $0 = 0$ then 1 else 0	$\longrightarrow$

Function application: substitute the argument into the body.

Detour: program evaluation

```
int f (int n) {  
    if n = 0 then 1 else 0  
}
```

Let's evaluate this function step by step:

$f(0)$	→ (function application)
if $0 = 0$ then 1 else 0	→ (equality comparison)
if true then 1 else 0	→

Function application: substitute the argument into the body.

Detour: program evaluation

```
int f (int n) {  
    if n = 0 then 1 else 0  
}
```

Let's evaluate this function step by step:

$f(0)$	→ (function application)
if $0 = 0$ then 1 else 0	→ (equality comparison)
if true then 1 else 0	→ (if true)
1	

Function application: substitute the argument into the body.

Detour: program evaluation

The λ -calculus formalises this kind of step-by-step evaluation of program expressions...

Detour: program evaluation

The λ -calculus formalises this kind of step-by-step evaluation of program expressions...

...for a tiny language where the *only* operation is function application. Nonetheless, λ -calculus is Turing complete. How can that be?

λ -calculus

Alonzo Church

- lived 1903–1995
- supervised people like Alan Turing, Stephen Kleene
- famous for Church-Turing thesis, lambda calculus, first undecidability results
- invented λ calculus in 1930's



λ -calculus

Alonzo Church

- lived 1903–1995
- supervised people like Alan Turing, Stephen Kleene
- famous for Church-Turing thesis, lambda calculus, first undecidability results
- invented λ calculus in 1930's



λ -calculus

- originally meant as foundation of mathematics
- important applications in theoretical computer science
- foundation of computability and functional programming

untyped λ -calculus

Basic intuition:

instead of	$f(x) = x + 5$
write	$f = \lambda x. x + 5$

untyped λ -calculus

Basic intuition:

instead of	$f(x) = x + 5$
write	$f = \lambda x. x + 5$

- a term

untyped λ -calculus

Basic intuition:

instead of $f(x) = x + 5$
write $f = \lambda x. x + 5$

$\lambda x. x + 5$

- a term
- a nameless function

untyped λ -calculus

Basic intuition:

instead of $f(x) = x + 5$
write $f = \lambda x. x + 5$

$\lambda x. x + 5$

- a term
- a nameless function
- that adds 5 to its parameter

Function Application

For applying arguments to functions

instead of	$f(a)$
write	$f\ a$

Function Application

For applying arguments to functions

instead of $f(a)$
write $f\ a$

Example: $(\lambda x. x + 5)\ a$

Function Application

For applying arguments to functions

instead of $f(a)$
write $f\ a$

Example: $(\lambda x. x + 5)\ a$

Evaluating: in $(\lambda x. t)\ a$ replace x by a in t
(computation!)

Function Application

For applying arguments to functions

instead of $f(a)$
write $f\ a$

Example: $(\lambda x. x + 5)\ a$

Evaluating: in $(\lambda x. t)\ a$ replace x by a in t
(computation!)

Example: $(\lambda x. x + 5)\ (a + b)$ evaluates to $(a + b) + 5$

That's it!

That's it!

Now Formally

Syntax

Terms: $t ::= v \mid c \mid (t\ t) \mid (\lambda x. t)$
 $v, x \in V, \quad c \in C, \quad V, C$ sets of names

Syntax

Terms: $t ::= v \mid c \mid (t\ t) \mid (\lambda x. t)$

$v, x \in V, \quad c \in C, \quad V, C$ sets of names

- v, x variables
- c constants
- $(t\ t)$ application
- $(\lambda x. t)$ abstraction

Conventions

- leave out parentheses where possible
- list variables instead of multiple λ

Example: instead of $(\lambda y. (\lambda x. (x y)))$ write $\lambda y x. x y$

Conventions

- leave out parentheses where possible
- list variables instead of multiple λ

Example: instead of $(\lambda y. (\lambda x. (x y)))$ write $\lambda y x. x y$

Rules:

- list variables: $\lambda x. (\lambda y. t) = \lambda x y. t$
- application binds to the left: $x y z = (x y) z \neq x (y z)$
- abstraction binds to the right:
 $\lambda x. x y = \lambda x. (x y) \neq (\lambda x. x) y$
- leave out outermost parentheses

Getting used to the Syntax

Example:

$\lambda x y z. x z (y z) =$

Getting used to the Syntax

Example:

$\lambda x y z. x z (y z) =$

$\lambda x y z. (x z) (y z) =$

Getting used to the Syntax

Example:

$\lambda x y z. x z (y z) =$

$\lambda x y z. (x z) (y z) =$

$\lambda x y z. ((x z) (y z)) =$

Getting used to the Syntax

Example:

$\lambda x y z. x z (y z) =$

$\lambda x y z. (x z) (y z) =$

$\lambda x y z. ((x z) (y z)) =$

$\lambda x. \lambda y. \lambda z. ((x z) (y z)) =$

Getting used to the Syntax

Example:

$\lambda x y z. x z (y z) =$

$\lambda x y z. (x z) (y z) =$

$\lambda x y z. ((x z) (y z)) =$

$\lambda x. \lambda y. \lambda z. ((x z) (y z)) =$

$(\lambda x. (\lambda y. (\lambda z. ((x z) (y z)))))$

Encoding numbers

Remember Peano arithmetic?

$$\begin{aligned}0 &\equiv Z \\1 &\equiv S(Z) \\2 &\equiv S(S(Z))\end{aligned}$$

In the λ -calculus we have *Church numerals*:

$$\begin{aligned}0 &\equiv \lambda f x. x \\1 &\equiv \lambda f x. f x \\2 &\equiv \lambda f x. f(f x)\end{aligned}$$

Encoding numbers

$$0 \equiv \lambda f x. x$$

$$1 \equiv \lambda f x. f\ x$$

$$2 \equiv \lambda f x. f(f\ x)$$

- We encode a number n a function...

Encoding numbers

$$0 \equiv \lambda f x. x$$

$$1 \equiv \lambda f x. f x$$

$$2 \equiv \lambda f x. f(f x)$$

- We encode a number n a function...
- ..that accepts two arguments, f and x ...

Encoding numbers

$$0 \equiv \lambda f x. x$$

$$1 \equiv \lambda f x. f\ x$$

$$2 \equiv \lambda f x. f(f\ x)$$

- We encode a number n a function...
- ..that accepts two arguments, f and x ...
- ..and returns the result of applying f to x n times.

Encoding numbers

$$0 \equiv \lambda f x. x$$

$$1 \equiv \lambda f x. f x$$

$$2 \equiv \lambda f x. f(f x)$$

Here's the successor function (given m return $m + 1$):

$$\lambda m. \lambda f x. f (m f x)$$

Encoding numbers

$$0 \equiv \lambda f x. x$$

$$1 \equiv \lambda f x. f x$$

$$2 \equiv \lambda f x. f(f x)$$

Here's addition (given m and n return $m + 1$):

$$\lambda m n. \lambda f x. m f (n f x)$$

Encoding booleans

<code>true</code>	$\equiv$	$\lambda x\ y. x$
<code>false</code>	$\equiv$	$\lambda x\ y. y$

We encode booleans as binary functions. `true` returns the first argument, `false` returns the second argument.

Encoding booleans

<code>true</code>	$\equiv$	$\lambda x\ y. x$
<code>false</code>	$\equiv$	$\lambda x\ y. y$
$\neg b$	$\equiv$	

We encode booleans as binary functions. `true` returns the first argument, `false` returns the second argument.

Encoding booleans

<code>true</code>	$\equiv$	$\lambda x y. x$
<code>false</code>	$\equiv$	$\lambda x y. y$
$\neg b$	$\equiv$	$\lambda b. b \text{ false true}$

We encode booleans as binary functions. `true` returns the first argument, `false` returns the second argument.

Encoding booleans

<code>true</code>	$\equiv$	$\lambda x y. x$
<code>false</code>	$\equiv$	$\lambda x y. y$
$\neg b$	$\equiv$	$\lambda b. b \text{ false true}$
<code>if z then x else y</code>	$\equiv$	

We encode booleans as binary functions. `true` returns the first argument, `false` returns the second argument.

Encoding booleans

<code>true</code>	$\equiv$	$\lambda x y. x$
<code>false</code>	$\equiv$	$\lambda x y. y$
$\neg b$	$\equiv$	$\lambda b. b \text{ false true}$
<code>if z then x else y</code>	$\equiv$	$\lambda z x y. z x y$

We encode booleans as binary functions. `true` returns the first argument, `false` returns the second argument.

Encoding booleans

<code>true</code>	$\equiv$	$\lambda x y. x$
<code>false</code>	$\equiv$	$\lambda x y. y$
$\neg b$	$\equiv$	$\lambda b. b \text{ false true}$
<code>if z then x else y</code>	$\equiv$	$\lambda z x y. z x y$
<code>isZero(n)</code>	$\equiv$	

We encode booleans as binary functions. `true` returns the first argument, `false` returns the second argument.

Encoding booleans

<code>true</code>	$\equiv$	$\lambda x y. x$
<code>false</code>	$\equiv$	$\lambda x y. y$
$\neg b$	$\equiv$	$\lambda b. b \text{ false true}$
<code>if z then x else y</code>	$\equiv$	$\lambda z x y. z x y$
<code>isZero(n)</code>	$\equiv$	$\lambda n. n (\lambda x. \text{false}) \text{ true}$

We encode booleans as binary functions. `true` returns the first argument, `false` returns the second argument.

Detour revisited

```
int f (int n) {  
    if n = 0 then 1 else 0  
}
```

This program can be encoded in λ -calculus as follows:

```
 $\lambda n.$   
  ( $n$  ( $\lambda x. (\lambda y. y)$ ) ( $\lambda x y. x$ ))  
    ( $\lambda f x. f x$ )  
    ( $\lambda f x. x$ )
```

Detour revisited

```
int f (int n) {  
    if n = 0 then 1 else 0  
}
```

This program can be encoded in λ -calculus as follows:

```
 $\lambda n.$   
  ( $n$  ( $\lambda x. (\lambda y. y)$ ) ( $\lambda x y. x$ )) if isZero( $n$ ) then  
    ( $\lambda f x. f x$ )  
    ( $\lambda f x. x$ )
```

Detour revisited

```
int f (int n) {  
    if n = 0 then 1 else 0  
}
```

This program can be encoded in λ -calculus as follows:

```
 $\lambda n.$   
  ( $n$  ( $\lambda x. (\lambda y. y)$ ) ( $\lambda x y. x$ )) if isZero( $n$ ) then  
    ( $\lambda f x. f x$ ) 1  
    ( $\lambda f x. x$ )
```

Detour revisited

```
int f (int n) {  
    if n = 0 then 1 else 0  
}
```

This program can be encoded in λ -calculus as follows:

```
 $\lambda n.$   
  ( $n$  ( $\lambda x. (\lambda y. y)$ ) ( $\lambda x y. x$ )) if isZero( $n$ ) then  
    ( $\lambda f x. f x$ ) 1  
    ( $\lambda f x. x$ ) else 0
```

Computation

Intuition: replace parameter by argument
this is called β -reduction

Example

$$(\lambda x y. f (y x)) \ 5 \ (\lambda x. x) \longrightarrow_{\beta}$$

Computation

Intuition: replace parameter by argument
this is called β -reduction

Example

$$(\lambda x y. f (y x)) \ 5 \ (\lambda x. x) \longrightarrow_{\beta}$$

$$(\lambda y. f (y \ 5)) \ (\lambda x. x) \longrightarrow_{\beta}$$

Computation

Intuition: replace parameter by argument
this is called β -reduction

Example

$$(\lambda x y. f (y x)) \ 5 \ (\lambda x. x) \longrightarrow_{\beta}$$

$$(\lambda y. f (y \ 5)) \ (\lambda x. x) \longrightarrow_{\beta}$$

$$f ((\lambda x. x) \ 5) \longrightarrow_{\beta}$$

Computation

Intuition: replace parameter by argument
this is called β -reduction

Example

$$(\lambda x y. f (y x)) \ 5 \ (\lambda x. x) \longrightarrow_{\beta}$$

$$(\lambda y. f (y \ 5)) \ (\lambda x. x) \longrightarrow_{\beta}$$

$$f \ ((\lambda x. x) \ 5) \longrightarrow_{\beta}$$

$$f \ 5$$

Defining Computation

β reduction:

$$\begin{array}{c} \frac{}{(\lambda x. s) t \longrightarrow_{\beta} s[x \leftarrow t]} \qquad \frac{s \longrightarrow_{\beta} s'}{(s t) \longrightarrow_{\beta} (s' t)} \\[2ex] \frac{t \longrightarrow_{\beta} t'}{(s t) \longrightarrow_{\beta} (s t')} \qquad \frac{s \longrightarrow_{\beta} s'}{\lambda x. s \longrightarrow_{\beta} \lambda x. s'} \end{array}$$

Defining Computation

β reduction:

$$\frac{}{(\lambda x. s) t \longrightarrow_{\beta} s[x \leftarrow t]} \qquad \frac{s \longrightarrow_{\beta} s'}{(s t) \longrightarrow_{\beta} (s' t)}$$
$$\frac{t \longrightarrow_{\beta} t'}{(s t) \longrightarrow_{\beta} (s t')} \qquad \frac{s \longrightarrow_{\beta} s'}{\lambda x. s \longrightarrow_{\beta} \lambda x. s'}$$

Still to do: define $s[x \leftarrow t]$

Defining Substitution

Easy concept. Small problem: variable capture.

Example: $(\lambda x. x z)[z \leftarrow x]$

Defining Substitution

Easy concept. Small problem: variable capture.

Example: $(\lambda x. x z)[z \leftarrow x]$

We do **not** want: $(\lambda x. x x)$ as result.

What do we want?

Defining Substitution

Easy concept. Small problem: variable capture.

Example: $(\lambda x. x z)[z \leftarrow x]$

We do **not** want: $(\lambda x. x x)$ as result.

What do we want?

In $(\lambda y. y z)[z \leftarrow x] = (\lambda y. y x)$ there would be no problem.

So, solution is: rename bound variables.

Free Variables

Bound variables: in $(\lambda x. t)$, x is a bound variable.

Free Variables

Bound variables: in $(\lambda x. t)$, x is a bound variable.

Free variables FV of a term:

$$FV(x) = \{x\}$$

$$FV(c) = \{\}$$

$$FV(s\ t) = FV(s) \cup FV(t)$$

$$FV(\lambda x. t) = FV(t) \setminus \{x\}$$

Example: $FV(\lambda x. (\lambda y. (\lambda x. x) y) y\ x)$

Free Variables

Bound variables: in $(\lambda x. t)$, x is a bound variable.

Free variables FV of a term:

$$FV(x) = \{x\}$$

$$FV(c) = \{\}$$

$$FV(s\ t) = FV(s) \cup FV(t)$$

$$FV(\lambda x. t) = FV(t) \setminus \{x\}$$

Example: $FV(\lambda x. (\lambda y. (\lambda x. x) y) y\ x) = \{y\}$

Free Variables

Bound variables: in $(\lambda x. t)$, x is a bound variable.

Free variables FV of a term:

$$FV(x) = \{x\}$$

$$FV(c) = \{\}$$

$$FV(s\ t) = FV(s) \cup FV(t)$$

$$FV(\lambda x. t) = FV(t) \setminus \{x\}$$

Example: $FV(\lambda x. (\lambda y. (\lambda x. x) y) y\ x) = \{y\}$

Term t is called **closed** if $FV(t) = \{\}$

Free Variables

Bound variables: in $(\lambda x. t)$, x is a bound variable.

Free variables FV of a term:

$$FV(x) = \{x\}$$

$$FV(c) = \{\}$$

$$FV(s\ t) = FV(s) \cup FV(t)$$

$$FV(\lambda x. t) = FV(t) \setminus \{x\}$$

Example: $FV(\lambda x. (\lambda y. (\lambda x. x) y) y\ x) = \{y\}$

Term t is called **closed** if $FV(t) = \{\}$

The substitution example, $(\lambda x. x\ z)[z \leftarrow x]$, is problematic because the bound variable x is a free variable of the replacement term “ x ”.

Substitution

$$x [x \leftarrow t] = t$$

$$y [x \leftarrow t] = y$$

$$c [x \leftarrow t] = c$$

if $x \neq y$

$$(s_1 \ s_2) [x \leftarrow t] =$$

Substitution

$$\begin{array}{ll} x [x \leftarrow t] & = t \\ y [x \leftarrow t] & = y \\ c [x \leftarrow t] & = c \end{array} \quad \text{if } x \neq y$$

$$(s_1 \ s_2) [x \leftarrow t] = (s_1[x \leftarrow t] \ s_2[x \leftarrow t])$$

$$(\lambda x. s) [x \leftarrow t] =$$

Substitution

$$\begin{array}{ll} x [x \leftarrow t] & = t \\ y [x \leftarrow t] & = y \\ c [x \leftarrow t] & = c \end{array} \quad \text{if } x \neq y$$

$$(s_1 \ s_2) [x \leftarrow t] = (s_1[x \leftarrow t] \ s_2[x \leftarrow t])$$

$$(\lambda x. s) [x \leftarrow t] = (\lambda x. s)$$

$$(\lambda y. s) [x \leftarrow t] =$$

Substitution

$$\begin{array}{ll} x [x \leftarrow t] & = t \\ y [x \leftarrow t] & = y \\ c [x \leftarrow t] & = c \end{array} \quad \text{if } x \neq y$$

$$(s_1 \ s_2) [x \leftarrow t] = (s_1[x \leftarrow t] \ s_2[x \leftarrow t])$$

$$\begin{array}{ll} (\lambda x. s) [x \leftarrow t] & = (\lambda x. s) \\ (\lambda y. s) [x \leftarrow t] & = (\lambda y. s[x \leftarrow t]) \\ (\lambda y. s) [x \leftarrow t] & = \end{array} \quad \text{if } x \neq y \text{ and } y \notin FV(t)$$

Substitution

$$\begin{array}{ll} x [x \leftarrow t] & = t \\ y [x \leftarrow t] & = y \\ c [x \leftarrow t] & = c \end{array} \quad \text{if } x \neq y$$

$$(s_1 \ s_2) [x \leftarrow t] = (s_1[x \leftarrow t] \ s_2[x \leftarrow t])$$

$$(\lambda x. s) [x \leftarrow t] = (\lambda x. s)$$

$$(\lambda y. s) [x \leftarrow t] = (\lambda y. s[x \leftarrow t]) \quad \text{if } x \neq y \text{ and } y \notin FV(t)$$

$$(\lambda y. s) [x \leftarrow t] = (\lambda z. s[y \leftarrow z][x \leftarrow t]) \quad \begin{array}{l} \text{if } x \neq y \\ \text{and } z \notin FV(t) \cup FV(s) \end{array}$$

Substitution Example

$$(x \ (\lambda x. x) \ (\lambda y. z \ x))[x \leftarrow y]$$

Substitution Example

$$\begin{aligned} & (x \ (\lambda x. x) \ (\lambda y. z \ x))[x \leftarrow y] \\ = & (x[x \leftarrow y]) \ ((\lambda x. x)[x \leftarrow y]) \ ((\lambda y. z \ x)[x \leftarrow y]) \end{aligned}$$

Substitution Example

$$\begin{aligned} & (x \ (\lambda x. x) \ (\lambda y. z \ x))[x \leftarrow y] \\ = & (x[x \leftarrow y]) \ ((\lambda x. x)[x \leftarrow y]) \ ((\lambda y. z \ x)[x \leftarrow y]) \\ = & y \ (\lambda x. x) \ (\lambda y'. z \ y) \end{aligned}$$

α Conversion

Bound names are irrelevant:

$\lambda x. x$ and $\lambda y. y$ denote the same function.

α conversion:

$s =_{\alpha} t$ means $s = t$ up to renaming of bound variables.

α Conversion

Bound names are irrelevant:

$\lambda x. x$ and $\lambda y. y$ denote the same function.

α **conversion:**

$s =_{\alpha} t$ means $s = t$ up to renaming of bound variables.

Formally:

$$\frac{y \notin FV(t)}{(\lambda x. t) \longrightarrow_{\alpha} (\lambda y. t[x \leftarrow y])}$$

$$\frac{s \longrightarrow_{\alpha} s'}{(s t) \longrightarrow_{\alpha} (s' t)}$$

$$\frac{t \longrightarrow_{\alpha} t'}{(s t) \longrightarrow_{\alpha} (s t')}$$

$$\frac{s \longrightarrow_{\alpha} s'}{(\lambda x. s) \longrightarrow_{\alpha} (\lambda x. s')}$$

α Conversion

Bound names are irrelevant:

$\lambda x. x$ and $\lambda y. y$ denote the same function.

α **conversion:**

$s =_{\alpha} t$ means $s = t$ up to renaming of bound variables.

Formally:

$$\frac{y \notin FV(t)}{(\lambda x. t) \rightarrow_{\alpha} (\lambda y. t[x \leftarrow y])}$$

$$\frac{s \rightarrow_{\alpha} s'}{(s t) \rightarrow_{\alpha} (s' t)}$$

$$\frac{t \rightarrow_{\alpha} t'}{(s t) \rightarrow_{\alpha} (s t')}$$

$$\frac{s \rightarrow_{\alpha} s'}{(\lambda x. s) \rightarrow_{\alpha} (\lambda x. s')}$$

$$s =_{\alpha} t \quad \text{iff} \quad s \rightarrow_{\alpha}^* t$$

($\rightarrow_{\alpha}^*$ = transitive, reflexive closure of $\rightarrow_{\alpha}$ = multiple steps)

α Conversion

Examples:

$x (\lambda x y. x y)$

α Conversion

Examples:

$$\begin{aligned} & x (\lambda x y. x y) \\ =_{\alpha} & x (\lambda y x. y x) \end{aligned}$$

α Conversion

Examples:

$$\begin{aligned} & x (\lambda x y. x y) \\ =_{\alpha} & x (\lambda y x. y x) \\ =_{\alpha} & x (\lambda z y. z y) \end{aligned}$$

α Conversion

Examples:

$$\begin{aligned} & x (\lambda x y. x y) \\ =_{\alpha} & x (\lambda y x. y x) \\ =_{\alpha} & x (\lambda z y. z y) \\ \neq_{\alpha} & z (\lambda z y. z y) \end{aligned}$$

α Conversion

Examples:

$x (\lambda x y. x y)$

$=_{\alpha} x (\lambda y x. y x)$

$=_{\alpha} x (\lambda z y. z y)$

$\neq_{\alpha} z (\lambda z y. z y)$

$\neq_{\alpha} z (\lambda x x. x x)$

Back to β

We have defined β reduction: $\longrightarrow_{\beta}$

Some notation and concepts:

- **β conversion:** $s =_{\beta} t$ iff $\exists n. s \longrightarrow_{\beta}^* n \wedge t \longrightarrow_{\beta}^* n$

Back to β

We have defined β reduction: $\longrightarrow_{\beta}$

Some notation and concepts:

- β **conversion**: $s =_{\beta} t$ iff $\exists n. s \longrightarrow_{\beta}^* n \wedge t \longrightarrow_{\beta}^* n$
- t is **reducible** if there is an s such that $t \longrightarrow_{\beta} s$

Back to β

We have defined β reduction: $\longrightarrow_{\beta}$

Some notation and concepts:

- β **conversion**: $s =_{\beta} t$ iff $\exists n. s \longrightarrow_{\beta}^* n \wedge t \longrightarrow_{\beta}^* n$
- t is **reducible** if there is an s such that $t \longrightarrow_{\beta} s$
- $(\lambda x. s) t$ is called a **redex** (reducible expression)

Back to β

We have defined β reduction: $\longrightarrow_{\beta}$

Some notation and concepts:

- β **conversion**: $s =_{\beta} t$ iff $\exists n. s \longrightarrow_{\beta}^* n \wedge t \longrightarrow_{\beta}^* n$
- t is **reducible** if there is an s such that $t \longrightarrow_{\beta} s$
- $(\lambda x. s) t$ is called a **redex** (reducible expression)
- t is reducible iff it contains a redex

Back to β

We have defined β reduction: $\longrightarrow_{\beta}$

Some notation and concepts:

- β **conversion**: $s =_{\beta} t$ iff $\exists n. s \longrightarrow_{\beta}^* n \wedge t \longrightarrow_{\beta}^* n$
- t is **reducible** if there is an s such that $t \longrightarrow_{\beta} s$
- $(\lambda x. s) t$ is called a **redex** (reducible expression)
- t is reducible iff it contains a redex
- if it is not reducible, t is in **normal form**

Does every λ term have a normal form?

Example:

$$(\lambda x. x x) (\lambda x. x x) \longrightarrow_{\beta}$$

Does every λ term have a normal form?

Example:

$$\begin{aligned} (\lambda x. x x) (\lambda x. x x) &\longrightarrow_{\beta} \\ (\lambda x. x x) (\lambda x. x x) &\longrightarrow_{\beta} \end{aligned}$$

Does every λ term have a normal form?

No!

Example:

$$\begin{aligned}(\lambda x. x x) (\lambda x. x x) &\longrightarrow_{\beta} \\(\lambda x. x x) (\lambda x. x x) &\longrightarrow_{\beta} \\(\lambda x. x x) (\lambda x. x x) &\longrightarrow_{\beta} \dots\end{aligned}$$

Does every λ term have a normal form?

No!

Example:

$$\begin{aligned}(\lambda x. x x) (\lambda x. x x) &\longrightarrow_{\beta} \\(\lambda x. x x) (\lambda x. x x) &\longrightarrow_{\beta} \\(\lambda x. x x) (\lambda x. x x) &\longrightarrow_{\beta} \dots\end{aligned}$$

$$\text{(but: } (\lambda x y. y) ((\lambda x. x x) (\lambda x. x x)) \longrightarrow_{\beta} \lambda y. y \text{)}$$

Does every λ term have a normal form?

No!

Example:

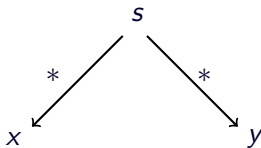
$$\begin{aligned}(\lambda x. x x) (\lambda x. x x) &\longrightarrow_{\beta} \\(\lambda x. x x) (\lambda x. x x) &\longrightarrow_{\beta} \\(\lambda x. x x) (\lambda x. x x) &\longrightarrow_{\beta} \dots\end{aligned}$$

$$\text{(but: } (\lambda x y. y) ((\lambda x. x x) (\lambda x. x x)) \longrightarrow_{\beta} \lambda y. y \text{)}$$

λ calculus is not terminating

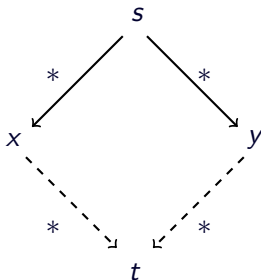
β reduction is confluent

Confluence: $s \longrightarrow_{\beta}^* x \wedge s \longrightarrow_{\beta}^* y \implies \exists t. x \longrightarrow_{\beta}^* t \wedge y \longrightarrow_{\beta}^* t$



β reduction is confluent

Confluence: $s \longrightarrow_{\beta}^* x \wedge s \longrightarrow_{\beta}^* y \implies \exists t. x \longrightarrow_{\beta}^* t \wedge y \longrightarrow_{\beta}^* t$



Order of reduction does not matter for result
Normal forms in λ calculus are unique

β reduction is confluent

Example:

$(\lambda x. y. y) ((\lambda x. x x) a)$

$(\lambda x. y. y) ((\lambda x. x x) a)$

β reduction is confluent

Example:

$$(\lambda x y. y) ((\lambda x. x x) a) \longrightarrow_{\beta} (\lambda x y. y) (a a)$$

$$(\lambda x y. y) ((\lambda x. x x) a) \longrightarrow_{\beta} \lambda y. y$$

β reduction is confluent

Example:

$$(\lambda x \ y. \ y) ((\lambda x. \ x \ x) \ a) \longrightarrow_{\beta} (\lambda x \ y. \ y) (a \ a) \longrightarrow_{\beta} \lambda y. \ y$$

$$(\lambda x \ y. \ y) ((\lambda x. \ x \ x) \ a) \longrightarrow_{\beta} \lambda y. \ y$$

So, what can you do with λ calculus?

λ calculus is very expressive, you can encode:

- logic, set theory
- turing machines, functional programs, etc.

Examples:

So, what can you do with λ calculus?

λ calculus is very expressive, you can encode:

- logic, set theory
- turing machines, functional programs, etc.

Examples:

`true` $\equiv \lambda x y. x$

`false` $\equiv \lambda x y. y$

`if` $\equiv \lambda z x y. z x y$

So, what can you do with λ calculus?

λ calculus is very expressive, you can encode:

- logic, set theory
- turing machines, functional programs, etc.

Examples:

`true` $\equiv \lambda x y. x$

`false` $\equiv \lambda x y. y$

`if` $\equiv \lambda z x y. z x y$

`if true` $x y \longrightarrow_{\beta}^* x$

`if false` $x y \longrightarrow_{\beta}^* y$

So, what can you do with λ calculus?

λ calculus is very expressive, you can encode:

- logic, set theory
- turing machines, functional programs, etc.

Examples:

$\text{true} \equiv \lambda x y. x$

$\text{false} \equiv \lambda x y. y$

$\text{if} \equiv \lambda z x y. z x y$

$\text{if true } x y \longrightarrow_{\beta}^* x$

$\text{if false } x y \longrightarrow_{\beta}^* y$

Now, not, and, or, etc is easy:

So, what can you do with λ calculus?

λ calculus is very expressive, you can encode:

- logic, set theory
- turing machines, functional programs, etc.

Examples:

$\text{true} \equiv \lambda x y. x$

$\text{if true } x y \longrightarrow_{\beta}^* x$

$\text{false} \equiv \lambda x y. y$

$\text{if false } x y \longrightarrow_{\beta}^* y$

$\text{if} \equiv \lambda z x y. z x y$

Now, not, and, or, etc is easy:

$\text{not} \equiv \lambda x. \text{if } x \text{ false true}$

$\text{and} \equiv \lambda x y. \text{if } x y \text{ false}$

$\text{or} \equiv \lambda x y. \text{if } x \text{ true } y$

Fix Points

$$(\lambda x. f. f (x x f)) (\lambda x. f. f (x x f)) t \longrightarrow_{\beta}$$

Fix Points

$$\begin{aligned} & (\lambda x. f. f (x \times f)) \ (\lambda x. f. f (x \times f)) \ t \longrightarrow_{\beta} \\ & (\lambda f. f \ ((\lambda x. f. f (x \times f)) \ (\lambda x. f. f (x \times f)) \ f)) \ t \longrightarrow_{\beta} \end{aligned}$$

Fix Points

$$\begin{aligned} & (\lambda x. f. f (x \times f)) \ (\lambda x. f. f (x \times f)) \ t \longrightarrow_{\beta} \\ & (\lambda f. f \ ((\lambda x. f. f (x \times f)) \ (\lambda x. f. f (x \times f)) \ f)) \ t \longrightarrow_{\beta} \\ & t \ ((\lambda x. f. f (x \times f)) \ (\lambda x. f. f (x \times f)) \ t) \end{aligned}$$

Fix Points

$$\begin{aligned} & (\lambda x f. f (x x f)) (\lambda x f. f (x x f)) t \longrightarrow_{\beta} \\ & (\lambda f. f ((\lambda x f. f (x x f)) (\lambda x f. f (x x f)) f)) t \longrightarrow_{\beta} \\ & t ((\lambda x f. f (x x f)) (\lambda x f. f (x x f)) t) \end{aligned}$$

$$\begin{aligned} \mu &= (\lambda x f. f (x x f)) (\lambda x f. f (x x f)) \\ \mu t &\longrightarrow_{\beta} t (\mu t) \longrightarrow_{\beta} t (t (\mu t)) \longrightarrow_{\beta} t (t (t (\mu t))) \longrightarrow_{\beta} \dots \end{aligned}$$

Fix Points

$$\begin{aligned} & (\lambda x f. f (x x f)) (\lambda x f. f (x x f)) t \longrightarrow_{\beta} \\ & (\lambda f. f ((\lambda x f. f (x x f)) (\lambda x f. f (x x f)) f)) t \longrightarrow_{\beta} \\ & t ((\lambda x f. f (x x f)) (\lambda x f. f (x x f)) t) \end{aligned}$$

$$\begin{aligned} \mu &= (\lambda x f. f (x x f)) (\lambda x f. f (x x f)) \\ \mu t &\longrightarrow_{\beta} t (\mu t) \longrightarrow_{\beta} t (t (\mu t)) \longrightarrow_{\beta} t (t (t (\mu t))) \longrightarrow_{\beta} \dots \end{aligned}$$

$(\lambda x f. f (x x f)) (\lambda x f. f (x x f))$ is Turing's fix point operator

Nice, but ...

As a mathematical foundation, (untyped) λ does not work. **It is inconsistent.**

Nice, but ...

As a mathematical foundation, (untyped) λ does not work. **It is inconsistent.**

- **Russell** (1901): Paradox $R \equiv \{X | X \notin X\}$
- **Church** (1930): λ calculus as logic, true, false, $\wedge$, ... as λ terms

Russell's paradox in λ -calculus:

Nice, but ...

As a mathematical foundation, (untyped) λ does not work. **It is inconsistent.**

- **Russell** (1901): Paradox $R \equiv \{X | X \notin X\}$
- **Church** (1930): λ calculus as logic, true, false, $\wedge$, ... as λ terms

Russell's paradox in λ -calculus:

you can write $R \equiv \lambda x. \text{not } (x\ x)$

Nice, but ...

As a mathematical foundation, (untyped) λ does not work. **It is inconsistent.**

- **Russell** (1901): Paradox $R \equiv \{X | X \notin X\}$
- **Church** (1930): λ calculus as logic, true, false, $\wedge$, ... as λ terms

Russell's paradox in λ -calculus:

you can write $R \equiv \lambda x. \text{not } (x\ x)$
and get $(R\ R) =_{\beta} \text{not } (R\ R)$

Nice, but ...

As a mathematical foundation, (untyped) λ does not work. **It is inconsistent.**

- **Russell** (1901): Paradox $R \equiv \{X | X \notin X\}$
- **Church** (1930): λ calculus as logic, true, false, $\wedge$, ... as λ terms

Russell's paradox in λ -calculus:

you can write $R \equiv \lambda x. \text{not } (x \ x)$

and get $(R \ R) =_{\beta} \text{not } (R \ R)$

because $(R \ R) = (\lambda x. \text{not } (x \ x)) \ R \longrightarrow_{\beta} \text{not } (R \ R)$

Summary of what we learned so far

- λ calculus syntax
- free variables, substitution
- α conversion
- β reduction
- β reduction is confluent
- λ calculus is very expressive (Turing complete)
- λ calculus is inconsistent (as a logic)

Exercise

- Reduce $(\lambda x. y (\lambda v. x v)) (\lambda y. v y)$ to β normal form.

λ calculus is inconsistent

Can find term R such that $R R =_{\beta} \text{not}(R R)$

λ calculus is inconsistent

Can find term R such that $R R =_{\beta} \text{not}(R R)$

Solution: rule out ill-formed terms by using types.
(Church 1940)

Introducing types

Idea: assign a type to each “sensible” λ term.

Examples:

Introducing types

Idea: assign a type to each “sensible” λ term.

Examples:

- for *term t has type α* write $t :: \alpha$

Introducing types

Idea: assign a type to each “sensible” λ term.

Examples:

- for *term* t has type α write $t :: \alpha$
- if x has type α then $\lambda x. x$ is a function from α to α
Write: $(\lambda x. x) :: \alpha \Rightarrow \alpha$

Introducing types

Idea: assign a type to each “sensible” λ term.

Examples:

- for *term* t has type α write $t :: \alpha$
- if x has type α then $\lambda x. x$ is a function from α to α
Write: $(\lambda x. x) :: \alpha \Rightarrow \alpha$
- for $s\ t$ to be sensible:
 s must be a function
 t must be right type for parameter
 If $s :: \alpha \Rightarrow \beta$ and $t :: \alpha$ then $(s\ t) :: \beta$

That's it!

That's it!

Now Formally

Syntax for $\lambda^{\rightarrow}$

Terms: $t ::= v \mid c \mid (t\ t) \mid (\lambda x. t)$
 $v, x \in V, \quad c \in C, \quad V, C$ sets of names

Types: $\tau ::= b \mid \nu \mid \tau \Rightarrow \tau$
 $b \in \{\text{bool}, \text{int}, \dots\}$ base types
 $\nu \in \{\alpha, \beta, \dots\}$ type variables

$$\alpha \Rightarrow \beta \Rightarrow \gamma \quad = \quad \alpha \Rightarrow (\beta \Rightarrow \gamma)$$

Syntax for $\lambda^{\rightarrow}$

Terms: $t ::= v \mid c \mid (t\ t) \mid (\lambda x. t)$
 $v, x \in V, \quad c \in C, \quad V, C$ sets of names

Types: $\tau ::= b \mid \nu \mid \tau \Rightarrow \tau$
 $b \in \{\text{bool}, \text{int}, \dots\}$ base types
 $\nu \in \{\alpha, \beta, \dots\}$ type variables

$$\alpha \Rightarrow \beta \Rightarrow \gamma \quad = \quad \alpha \Rightarrow (\beta \Rightarrow \gamma)$$

Context Γ :

Γ : function from variable and constant names to types.

Syntax for $\lambda^{\rightarrow}$

Terms: $t ::= v \mid c \mid (t\ t) \mid (\lambda x. t)$
 $v, x \in V, \quad c \in C, \quad V, C$ sets of names

Types: $\tau ::= b \mid \nu \mid \tau \Rightarrow \tau$
 $b \in \{\text{bool}, \text{int}, \dots\}$ base types
 $\nu \in \{\alpha, \beta, \dots\}$ type variables

$$\alpha \Rightarrow \beta \Rightarrow \gamma = \alpha \Rightarrow (\beta \Rightarrow \gamma)$$

Context Γ :

Γ : function from variable and constant names to types.

Term t has type τ in context Γ : $\Gamma \vdash t :: \tau$

Examples

$$\Gamma \vdash (\lambda x. x) :: \alpha \Rightarrow \alpha$$

Examples

$$\Gamma \vdash (\lambda x. x) :: \alpha \Rightarrow \alpha$$
$$[y \leftarrow \text{int}] \vdash y :: \text{int}$$

Examples

$$\Gamma \vdash (\lambda x. x) :: \alpha \Rightarrow \alpha$$
$$[y \leftarrow \text{int}] \vdash y :: \text{int}$$
$$[z \leftarrow \text{bool}] \vdash (\lambda y. y) z :: \text{bool}$$

Examples

$$\Gamma \vdash (\lambda x. x) :: \alpha \Rightarrow \alpha$$
$$[y \leftarrow \text{int}] \vdash y :: \text{int}$$
$$[z \leftarrow \text{bool}] \vdash (\lambda y. y) z :: \text{bool}$$
$$[] \vdash \lambda f x. f x :: (\alpha \Rightarrow \beta) \Rightarrow \alpha \Rightarrow \beta$$

Examples

$$\Gamma \vdash (\lambda x. x) :: \alpha \Rightarrow \alpha$$

$$[y \leftarrow \text{int}] \vdash y :: \text{int}$$

$$[z \leftarrow \text{bool}] \vdash (\lambda y. y) z :: \text{bool}$$

$$[] \vdash \lambda f x. f x :: (\alpha \Rightarrow \beta) \Rightarrow \alpha \Rightarrow \beta$$

A term t is **well typed** or **type correct**
if there are Γ and τ such that $\Gamma \vdash t :: \tau$

Type Checking Rules

Variables:

$$\overline{\Gamma \vdash x :: \Gamma(x)}$$

Type Checking Rules

Variables:

$$\overline{\Gamma \vdash x :: \Gamma(x)}$$

Application:

$$\frac{}{\Gamma \vdash (t_1 \ t_2) :: \tau}$$

Type Checking Rules

Variables:

$$\overline{\Gamma \vdash x :: \Gamma(x)}$$

Application:

$$\frac{\Gamma \vdash t_1 :: \tau_2 \Rightarrow \tau \quad \Gamma \vdash t_2 :: \tau_2}{\Gamma \vdash (t_1 \ t_2) :: \tau}$$

Type Checking Rules

Variables: $\overline{\Gamma \vdash x :: \Gamma(x)}$

Application:
$$\frac{\Gamma \vdash t_1 :: \tau_2 \Rightarrow \tau \quad \Gamma \vdash t_2 :: \tau_2}{\Gamma \vdash (t_1 \ t_2) :: \tau}$$

Abstraction:
$$\overline{\Gamma \vdash (\lambda x. \ t) :: \tau_x \Rightarrow \tau}$$

Type Checking Rules

Variables:
$$\overline{\Gamma \vdash x :: \Gamma(x)}$$

Application:
$$\frac{\Gamma \vdash t_1 :: \tau_2 \Rightarrow \tau \quad \Gamma \vdash t_2 :: \tau_2}{\Gamma \vdash (t_1 \ t_2) :: \tau}$$

Abstraction:
$$\frac{\Gamma[x \leftarrow \tau_x] \vdash t :: \tau}{\Gamma \vdash (\lambda x. \ t) :: \tau_x \Rightarrow \tau}$$

What about β reduction?

What about β reduction?

Definition of β reduction stays the same.

What about β reduction?

Definition of β reduction stays the same.

Fact: Well typed terms stay well typed after β reduction

Formally: $\Gamma \vdash s :: \tau \wedge s \longrightarrow_{\beta} t \implies \Gamma \vdash t :: \tau$

What about β reduction?

Definition of β reduction stays the same.

Fact: Well typed terms stay well typed after β reduction

Formally: $\Gamma \vdash s :: \tau \wedge s \longrightarrow_{\beta} t \implies \Gamma \vdash t :: \tau$

This property is called **subject reduction**

Exercise

Derive the normal form by β -reducing the following term:

$$(\lambda f\ x. f\ x)(\lambda y. y)\ z$$

What about termination?

What about termination?

β reduction in $\lambda^{\rightarrow}$ always terminates.



(Alan Turing, 1942)

What about termination?

β reduction in $\lambda^{\rightarrow}$ always terminates.



(Alan Turing, 1942)

- $=_{\beta}$ is decidable

To decide if $s =_{\beta} t$, reduce s and t to normal form (always exists, because $\longrightarrow_{\beta}$ terminates), and compare result.

What about termination?

β reduction in $\lambda^{\rightarrow}$ always terminates.



(Alan Turing, 1942)

- $=_{\beta}$ is decidable

To decide if $s =_{\beta} t$, reduce s and t to normal form (always exists, because $\longrightarrow_{\beta}$ terminates), and compare result.

- $=_{\alpha\beta}$ is decidable

We have learned so far...

- Simply typed lambda calculus: $\lambda^{\rightarrow}$
- Typing rules for $\lambda^{\rightarrow}$, type variables, type contexts
- β -reduction in $\lambda^{\rightarrow}$ satisfies subject reduction
- β -reduction in $\lambda^{\rightarrow}$ always terminates

Defining Higher Order Logic

What is Higher Order Logic?

- **Propositional Logic:**
 - no quantifiers
 - all variables have type bool

What is Higher Order Logic?

- **Propositional Logic:**
 - no quantifiers
 - all variables have type bool
- **First Order Logic:**
 - quantification over values, but not over functions and predicates,
 - terms and formulas syntactically distinct

What is Higher Order Logic?

- **Propositional Logic:**

- no quantifiers
- all variables have type bool

- **First Order Logic:**

- quantification over values, but not over functions and predicates,
- terms and formulas syntactically distinct

- **Higher Order Logic:**

- quantification over everything, including predicates
- consistency by types
- formula = term of type bool
- definition built on $\lambda^{\rightarrow}$ with certain default types and constants

Defining Higher Order Logic

Default types:

Defining Higher Order Logic

Default types:

`bool`

Defining Higher Order Logic

Default types:

bool $- \Rightarrow -$

Defining Higher Order Logic

Default types:

bool

$- \Rightarrow -$

ind

Defining Higher Order Logic

Default types:

bool $_ \Rightarrow _$ ind

- **bool**
- $\Rightarrow$ sometimes called *fun*

Defining Higher Order Logic

Default types:

bool $_ \Rightarrow _$ ind

- **bool**
- $\Rightarrow$ sometimes called *fun*

Default Constants:

Defining Higher Order Logic

Default types:

`bool` `_  $\Rightarrow$  _` `ind`

- `bool`
- `$\Rightarrow$` sometimes called *fun*

Default Constants:

`=` `::` `$\alpha \Rightarrow \alpha \Rightarrow bool$`

Higher Order Abstract Syntax

Problem: Define syntax for binders like $\forall$ and $\exists$

Higher Order Abstract Syntax

Problem: Define syntax for binders like $\forall$ and $\exists$

One approach: $\forall :: \text{var} \Rightarrow \text{term} \Rightarrow \text{bool}$

Drawback: need to think about substitution, α conversion again.

Higher Order Abstract Syntax

Problem: Define syntax for binders like $\forall$ and $\exists$

One approach: $\forall :: \text{var} \Rightarrow \text{term} \Rightarrow \text{bool}$

Drawback: need to think about substitution, α conversion again.

But: Already have binder, substitution, α conversion in host language

λ

Higher Order Abstract Syntax

Problem: Define syntax for binders like $\forall$ and $\exists$

One approach: $\forall :: \text{var} \Rightarrow \text{term} \Rightarrow \text{bool}$

Drawback: need to think about substitution, α conversion again.

But: Already have binder, substitution, α conversion in host language

λ

So: Use λ to encode all other binders.

Higher Order Abstract Syntax

Example:

$ALL :: (\alpha \Rightarrow bool) \Rightarrow bool$

HOAS

usual syntax

Higher Order Abstract Syntax

Example:

$ALL :: (\alpha \Rightarrow bool) \Rightarrow bool$

HOAS

usual syntax

$ALL (\lambda x. x = 2)$

Higher Order Abstract Syntax

Example:

$ALL :: (\alpha \Rightarrow bool) \Rightarrow bool$

HOAS

usual syntax

$ALL (\lambda x. x = 2)$

$\forall x. x = 2$

Higher Order Abstract Syntax

Example:

$ALL :: (\alpha \Rightarrow bool) \Rightarrow bool$

HOAS

usual syntax

$ALL (\lambda x. x = 2)$

$\forall x. x = 2$

$ALL P$

Higher Order Abstract Syntax

Example:

$ALL :: (\alpha \Rightarrow bool) \Rightarrow bool$

HOAS

usual syntax

$ALL (\lambda x. x = 2)$

$\forall x. x = 2$

$ALL P$

$\forall x. P\ x$

Back to HOL

Base: $bool, \Rightarrow, ind$ $=$

And the rest is

Back to HOL

Base: $bool, \Rightarrow, ind$ =

And the rest is definitions:

$\text{True} \equiv$

$P \wedge Q \equiv$

$P \longrightarrow Q \equiv$

$\text{All } P \equiv$

$\text{Ex } P \equiv$

$\text{False} \equiv$

$\neg P \equiv$

$P \vee Q \equiv$

Back to HOL

Base: $bool, \Rightarrow, ind$ =

And the rest is definitions:

$\text{True} \equiv (\lambda x. x) = (\lambda x. x)$

$P \wedge Q \equiv$

$P \longrightarrow Q \equiv$

$\text{All } P \equiv$

$\text{Ex } P \equiv$

$\text{False} \equiv$

$\neg P \equiv$

$P \vee Q \equiv$

Back to HOL

Base: $bool, \Rightarrow, ind$ =

And the rest is definitions:

$\text{True} \equiv (\lambda x. x) = (\lambda x. x)$

$P \wedge Q \equiv \lambda p q. ((\lambda f. f \ p \ q) = (\lambda f. f \ \text{True} \ \text{True}))$

$P \longrightarrow Q \equiv$

$\text{All } P \equiv$

$\text{Ex } P \equiv$

$\text{False} \equiv$

$\neg P \equiv$

$P \vee Q \equiv$

Back to HOL

Base: $bool, \Rightarrow, ind$ =

And the rest is definitions:

$\text{True} \equiv (\lambda x. x) = (\lambda x. x)$

$P \wedge Q \equiv \lambda p q. ((\lambda f. f p q) = (\lambda f. f \text{True True}))$

$P \longrightarrow Q \equiv \lambda p q. ((p \wedge q) = p)$

$\text{All } P \equiv$

$\text{Ex } P \equiv$

$\text{False} \equiv$

$\neg P \equiv$

$P \vee Q \equiv$

Back to HOL

Base: $bool, \Rightarrow, ind$ =

And the rest is definitions:

$\text{True} \equiv (\lambda x. x) = (\lambda x. x)$

$P \wedge Q \equiv \lambda p q. ((\lambda f. f p q) = (\lambda f. f \text{True} \text{True}))$

$P \longrightarrow Q \equiv \lambda p q. ((p \wedge q) = p)$

$\text{All } P \equiv P = (\lambda x. \text{True})$

$\text{Ex } P \equiv \forall Q. (\forall x. P x \longrightarrow Q) \longrightarrow Q$

$\text{False} \equiv \forall P. P$

$\neg P \equiv P \longrightarrow \text{False}$

$P \vee Q \equiv \forall R. (P \longrightarrow R) \longrightarrow (Q \longrightarrow R) \longrightarrow R$

In conclusion

That was HOL from scratch! But we skipped some steps.

For example, what did we assume about $=$?

Anyhow, the resulting logic is consistent. (How do we know that?)

We have learned so far ...

- HOL
- Higher Order Abstract Syntax
- Defining HOL

More on HOL in COMP4161.